

HE2002 Macroeconomics II

Tutorial 2

Academic Year 2025/2026, Semester 2

Quantitative Research Society @NTU

August 17, 2026

Overview

This tutorial develops core tools from the goods market and money market blocks of the IS–LM framework. Key themes:

- Equilibrium output when *investment depends on output* and the resulting multiplier.
- Comparative statics for shifts in “business confidence” (investment intercept) and implications for national saving.
- Money demand as a function of income and the interest rate; scaling and elasticities.
- Money market equilibrium and central bank policy to target a new interest rate.
- Bond pricing and yields; inverse price–interest rate relation and present value.

Question 1 (Chapter 3, Q8)

Problem

(This problem examines the implications of allowing investment to depend on output.)

Suppose the economy is characterized by the following behavioral equations:

$$C = c_0 + c_1 Y_D, \quad Y_D = Y - T, \quad I = b_0 + b_1 Y,$$

where government spending G and taxes T are constant. Note that investment now increases with output.

- Solve for equilibrium output.
- What is the value of the multiplier? How does the relation between investment and output affect the value of the multiplier? For the multiplier to be positive, what condition must $(c_1 + b_1)$ satisfy?
- Suppose that the parameter b_0 , sometimes called business confidence, increases. How will equilibrium output be affected? What will happen to national saving?

Solution

Method 1: Direct substitution into goods-market equilibrium

We use the (closed-economy) goods-market equilibrium condition

$$Y = C + I + G.$$

- Equilibrium output.** First write consumption as a function of Y :

$$C = c_0 + c_1(Y_D) = c_0 + c_1(Y - T) = c_0 + c_1 Y - c_1 T.$$

Investment is $I = b_0 + b_1 Y$. Substituting into $Y = C + I + G$ gives

$$\begin{aligned} Y &= (c_0 + c_1 Y - c_1 T) + (b_0 + b_1 Y) + G \\ &= (c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1 T) + (c_1 + b_1)Y. \end{aligned}$$

Collect Y -terms on the left:

$$Y - (c_1 + b_1)Y = c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1 T \implies (1 - c_1 - b_1)Y = c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1 T.$$

Assuming $1 - c_1 - b_1 \neq 0$, the equilibrium output is

$$\boxed{Y^* = \frac{c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1 T}{1 - c_1 - b_1}}.$$

- (b) **Multiplier and the condition for positivity.** Consider a one-unit increase in autonomous spending (any parameter entering the numerator with coefficient +1), e.g. G or b_0 or c_0 . From the formula in (a),

$$\frac{\partial Y^*}{\partial G} = \frac{\partial Y^*}{\partial b_0} = \frac{\partial Y^*}{\partial c_0} = \frac{1}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

Thus the multiplier is

$$\text{Multiplier} = \frac{1}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

Effect of investment depending on output: relative to the standard case $b_1 = 0$, the denominator $1 - c_1 - b_1$ is smaller (for $b_1 > 0$), so the multiplier is larger. Intuitively, higher output raises investment ($b_1 Y$), which further raises demand and therefore amplifies output.

For the multiplier to be positive, we require

$$1 - c_1 - b_1 > 0 \iff c_1 + b_1 < 1,$$

so

$$c_1 + b_1 < 1.$$

- (c) **Increase in b_0 and national saving.** Let $\Delta b_0 > 0$. Since

$$Y^* = \frac{c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1 T}{1 - c_1 - b_1},$$

holding c_0, G, T, c_1, b_1 fixed gives

$$\Delta Y^* = \frac{1}{1 - c_1 - b_1} \Delta b_0 \Rightarrow \Delta Y^* = \frac{\Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

National saving (in a closed economy) is

$$S \equiv Y - C - G.$$

Using $C = c_0 + c_1(Y - T)$,

$$\begin{aligned} S &= Y - (c_0 + c_1(Y - T)) - G \\ &= Y - c_0 - c_1 Y + c_1 T - G \\ &= (1 - c_1)Y - (c_0 + G - c_1 T). \end{aligned}$$

All terms except Y are constant when only b_0 changes, so

$$\Delta S = (1 - c_1) \Delta Y^* = (1 - c_1) \frac{\Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

Therefore,

$$\Delta S = \frac{(1 - c_1) \Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

Since $0 < c_1 < 1$ in the standard Keynesian setup and $1 - c_1 - b_1 > 0$ for a positive multiplier, we have $\Delta S > 0$ when $\Delta b_0 > 0$.

Method 2: Keynesian-cross slope and fixed-point form

Define planned expenditure (total demand)

$$Z(Y) \equiv C(Y) + I(Y) + G.$$

Using the behavioral equations:

$$C(Y) = c_0 + c_1(Y - T) = (c_0 - c_1T) + c_1Y, \quad I(Y) = b_0 + b_1Y.$$

Hence

$$Z(Y) = (c_0 - c_1T + b_0 + G) + (c_1 + b_1)Y.$$

Equilibrium in the Keynesian cross is the fixed point $Y = Z(Y)$:

$$\begin{aligned} Y &= (c_0 - c_1T + b_0 + G) + (c_1 + b_1)Y, \\ (1 - c_1 - b_1)Y &= c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1T, \\ Y^* &= \frac{c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1T}{1 - c_1 - b_1}. \end{aligned}$$

Thus

$$Y^* = \frac{c_0 + b_0 + G - c_1T}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

The slope of the planned expenditure line is

$$Z'(Y) = c_1 + b_1.$$

In the Keynesian-cross stability logic, a standard sufficient condition for convergence is $|Z'(Y)| < 1$; with $c_1, b_1 \geq 0$, this becomes

$$c_1 + b_1 < 1,$$

which is exactly the condition for a positive and finite multiplier.

Now consider a one-unit increase in the intercept of $Z(Y)$, i.e. in c_0 or b_0 or G . In a linear fixed-point equation $Y = \alpha + \beta Y$ with $|\beta| < 1$, the solution is $Y = \alpha/(1 - \beta)$, so the multiplier is $1/(1 - \beta)$. Here $\beta = c_1 + b_1$, so

$$\text{Multiplier} = \frac{1}{1 - (c_1 + b_1)} = \frac{1}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

For national saving, use the equilibrium identity (closed economy):

$$Y = C + I + G \implies Y - C - G = I.$$

Therefore

$$S \equiv Y - C - G = I.$$

Since $I(Y) = b_0 + b_1Y$, a change Δb_0 yields

$$\Delta S = \Delta I = \Delta b_0 + b_1 \Delta Y^*, \quad \text{with} \quad \Delta Y^* = \frac{\Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.$$

Substitute:

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta S &= \Delta b_0 + b_1 \frac{\Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1} = \Delta b_0 \left(1 + \frac{b_1}{1 - c_1 - b_1} \right) \\ &= \Delta b_0 \left(\frac{1 - c_1 - b_1 + b_1}{1 - c_1 - b_1} \right) = \frac{(1 - c_1)\Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1}.\end{aligned}$$

Hence

$$\boxed{\Delta S = \frac{(1 - c_1)\Delta b_0}{1 - c_1 - b_1}}.$$

Question 2 (Chapter 4, Q2)

Problem

Suppose that the household nominal income for a country is \$50,000 billion. The money demand function is given by

$$M^d = \$Y (0.2 - 0.8i).$$

- What is the demand for money when the interest rate is 1%? 5%?
- What is the relationship between money demand and income? Money demand and the interest rate?
- Suppose the yearly income is reduced by 20%. In percentage terms, what happens to the demand for money if the interest rate is 1%? If the interest rate is 5%?

Solution

Method 1: Direct computation and partial-derivative interpretation

Let $\$Y = 50,000$ (in billions of dollars). Interpret i as a decimal interest rate: $1\% = 0.01$, $5\% = 0.05$.

- Compute M^d at $i = 1\%$ and $i = 5\%$.**

For $i = 0.01$,

$$0.2 - 0.8i = 0.2 - 0.8(0.01) = 0.2 - 0.008 = 0.192,$$

so

$$M^d = 50,000 \times 0.192 = 9,600 \quad (\text{billion dollars}).$$

Thus

$$M^d(i = 1\%) = \$9,600 \text{ billion}.$$

For $i = 0.05$,

$$0.2 - 0.8i = 0.2 - 0.8(0.05) = 0.2 - 0.04 = 0.16,$$

so

$$M^d = 50,000 \times 0.16 = 8,000 \quad (\text{billion dollars}).$$

Thus

$$M^d(i = 5\%) = \$8,000 \text{ billion}.$$

- Relationship with income and interest rate.** Rewrite

$$M^d = (0.2 - 0.8i)Y.$$

Holding i fixed, money demand is proportional to income Y :

$$\frac{\partial M^d}{\partial Y} = 0.2 - 0.8i.$$

For typical interest rates where $0.2 - 0.8i > 0$, this derivative is positive, so higher income raises money demand.

Holding Y fixed, money demand decreases linearly with the interest rate:

$$\frac{\partial M^d}{\partial i} = Y(-0.8) = -0.8Y < 0.$$

So higher interest rates reduce money demand.

- (c) **Income reduced by 20%: percentage change in money demand.** A 20% income reduction means $Y' = 0.8Y$. Then

$$(M^d)' = Y'(0.2 - 0.8i) = 0.8Y(0.2 - 0.8i) = 0.8 M^d.$$

Therefore the demand for money falls by exactly 20% for any fixed i .

To verify numerically:

- If $i = 1\%$: original $M^d = 9,600$. New $M^d = 0.8 \times 9,600 = 7,680$. Percentage change $= (7,680 - 9,600)/9,600 = -20\%$.
- If $i = 5\%$: original $M^d = 8,000$. New $M^d = 0.8 \times 8,000 = 6,400$. Percentage change $= (6,400 - 8,000)/8,000 = -20\%$.

Hence

Money demand decreases by 20% at both $i = 1\%$ and $i = 5\%$.

Method 2: Elasticity/scaling argument (no arithmetic shortcuts left unjustified)

The demand function is multiplicatively separable:

$$M^d(Y, i) = Y \cdot f(i), \quad \text{where} \quad f(i) = 0.2 - 0.8i.$$

Part (b) via derivatives.

$$\frac{\partial M^d}{\partial Y} = f(i) = 0.2 - 0.8i, \quad \frac{\partial M^d}{\partial i} = Y f'(i) = Y(-0.8) = -0.8Y < 0.$$

Thus M^d is increasing in Y (when $f(i) > 0$) and decreasing in i .

Part (c) via proportional scaling. If income changes from Y to $Y' = (1 - \theta)Y$ for some $\theta \in (0, 1)$, then

$$M^d(Y', i) = Y' f(i) = (1 - \theta)Y f(i) = (1 - \theta)M^d(Y, i).$$

So the percentage change in M^d equals $-\theta \times 100\%$, independent of i . With $\theta = 0.2$,

$\% \Delta M^d = -20\% \text{ for any fixed interest rate } i.$

Parts (a) are then obtained by substituting $Y = 50,000$ and $i = 0.01, 0.05$ exactly as in Method 1, yielding \$9,600 and \$8,000 billion.

Question 3 (Chapter 4, Q4)

Problem

Suppose the money demand of an economy is given by

$$M^d = \$Y (0.25 - i),$$

where $\$Y$ is \$40,000. Also, suppose that the supply of money is \$8,000.

- (a) What is the equilibrium interest rate?
- (b) Suppose the central bank increases the value of equilibrium interest rate, i , in part (a) to 10%. Will there be excess money supply or excess money demand? What policy should the central bank consider to reach the new equilibrium interest rate?

Solution

Method 1: Market-clearing equation and direct substitution

Money market equilibrium requires $M^d = M^s$. Here $Y = 40,000$ (dollars; units consistent with M), $M^s = 8,000$, and i is a decimal rate.

- (a) **Equilibrium interest rate.** Set demand equal to supply:

$$40,000(0.25 - i) = 8,000.$$

Divide both sides by 40,000:

$$0.25 - i = \frac{8,000}{40,000} = 0.2.$$

Therefore

$$i = 0.25 - 0.2 = 0.05,$$

so

$$\boxed{i^* = 5\%}.$$

- (b) **Target $i = 10\%$: excess supply or demand and policy.** If the central bank wants $i = 10\%$, set $i = 0.10$ and compute money demand:

$$M^d(i = 0.10) = 40,000(0.25 - 0.10) = 40,000(0.15) = 6,000.$$

With money supply still $M^s = 8,000$,

$$M^s - M^d = 8,000 - 6,000 = 2,000 > 0,$$

so there is *excess money supply* of \$2,000.

To have equilibrium at $i = 10\%$ (with income fixed at 40,000), the central bank must set money supply equal to the demand at that rate:

$$M^{s,\text{new}} = 6,000.$$

Thus it should *reduce the money supply* by

$$8,000 - 6,000 = 2,000.$$

A standard implementation is a contractionary open market operation (sell bonds to the public to withdraw money), or other contractionary tools that reduce the monetary base. Hence

At $i = 10\%$ there is excess money supply; to reach 10% reduce M^s to \$6,000.

Method 2: Inverse money-demand schedule and comparative statics

From

$$M^d = Y(0.25 - i),$$

solve explicitly for i as a function of (Y, M) by dividing by $Y > 0$:

$$\frac{M^d}{Y} = 0.25 - i \quad \implies \quad i = 0.25 - \frac{M^d}{Y}.$$

In equilibrium, $M^d = M^s$, so the equilibrium interest rate is

$$i^* = 0.25 - \frac{M^s}{Y}.$$

With $M^s = 8,000$ and $Y = 40,000$,

$$i^* = 0.25 - \frac{8,000}{40,000} = 0.25 - 0.2 = 0.05 \quad \Rightarrow \quad \boxed{i^* = 5\%}.$$

Now impose the target $i^{\text{target}} = 10\% = 0.10$. The equilibrium condition written in inverse form is

$$0.10 = 0.25 - \frac{M^{s,\text{new}}}{40,000}.$$

Solve for $M^{s,\text{new}}$:

$$\frac{M^{s,\text{new}}}{40,000} = 0.25 - 0.10 = 0.15 \quad \implies \quad M^{s,\text{new}} = 40,000(0.15) = 6,000.$$

Thus the central bank must decrease money supply from 8,000 to 6,000, confirming the excess-supply diagnosis and contractionary policy recommendation:

$$M^{s,\text{new}} = \$6,000 \text{ to sustain } i = 10\%.$$

Question 4 (Chapter 4, Q3)

Problem

(Please read Slide 19, “The Interest Rate on the Bond,” from the Lecture 2 slides.)

Consider a bond that promises to pay \$100 in one year.

- (a) What is the interest rate on the bond if its price today is \$75? \$85? \$95?
- (b) What is the relation between the price of the bond and the interest rate?
- (c) If the interest rate is 8%, what is the price of the bond today?

Solution

Method 1: One-period return definition (yield from price)

Let P be today's bond price and $F = 100$ be the face value paid in one year. The (one-period) interest rate i is defined by equating the gross return:

$$(1 + i)P = F \iff i = \frac{F}{P} - 1 = \frac{F - P}{P}.$$

- (a) **Compute i for each price.**

- If $P = 75$:

$$i = \frac{100}{75} - 1 = \frac{4}{3} - 1 = \frac{1}{3} = 0.333\bar{3} \Rightarrow \boxed{i = 33.\bar{3}\%}.$$

- If $P = 85$:

$$i = \frac{100}{85} - 1 = \frac{15}{85} = \frac{3}{17} \approx 0.1764706 \Rightarrow \boxed{i \approx 17.65\%}.$$

- If $P = 95$:

$$i = \frac{100}{95} - 1 = \frac{5}{95} = \frac{1}{19} \approx 0.0526316 \Rightarrow \boxed{i \approx 5.26\%}.$$

- (b) **Relation between P and i .** From

$$i(P) = \frac{100}{P} - 1,$$

differentiate with respect to $P > 0$:

$$\frac{di}{dP} = -\frac{100}{P^2} < 0.$$

Thus the interest rate is strictly decreasing in the bond price: higher prices imply lower yields, and lower prices imply higher yields. Hence

Bond price and interest rate are inversely related.

(c) **Price when $i = 8\%$.** Set $i = 0.08$ in $(1 + i)P = 100$:

$$(1.08)P = 100 \implies P = \frac{100}{1.08} = \frac{100}{108/100} = \frac{10000}{108} = \frac{2500}{27} \approx 92.5926.$$

Therefore

$$P = \frac{2500}{27} \approx \$92.59.$$

Method 2: Present value (discounting) formulation

A one-year riskless discount factor for interest rate i is

$$\text{PV factor} = \frac{1}{1 + i}.$$

Since the bond pays 100 in one year, its no-arbitrage price is the present value of the payoff:

$$P = \frac{100}{1 + i}.$$

(a) **Recover i from the present value equation.** Starting from $P = \frac{100}{1+i}$, solve for i :

$$P(1 + i) = 100 \implies 1 + i = \frac{100}{P} \implies i = \frac{100}{P} - 1.$$

Substituting $P = 75, 85, 95$ reproduces exactly the values computed in Method 1:

$$P = 75 \Rightarrow i = \frac{1}{3}, \quad P = 85 \Rightarrow i = \frac{3}{17}, \quad P = 95 \Rightarrow i = \frac{1}{19}.$$

(b) **Inverse relation.** Because $P(i) = \frac{100}{1+i}$, we have

$$\frac{dP}{di} = -\frac{100}{(1+i)^2} < 0,$$

so higher interest rates imply lower present values (lower bond prices). Hence

$$P \text{ decreases as } i \text{ increases.}$$

(c) **Compute P at $i = 8\%$.**

$$P = \frac{100}{1 + 0.08} = \frac{100}{1.08} = \frac{2500}{27} \approx 92.59,$$

so

$$P = \frac{2500}{27} \approx \$92.59.$$